

LEADERSHIP OVER-EMERGENCE IN SELF-MANAGING TEAMS: THE ROLE OF GENDER AND COUNTERVAILING BIASES

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We examine leadership over-emergence, defined as instances when the level of one's leadership emergence is higher than the level of one's leadership effectiveness, in a sample of intact self-managing teams who worked together for a period of seven months. We draw from Gender Role Theory and Expectancy Violation Theory to examine the role of gender in predicting leadership over-emergence. Building on arguments from Gender Role Theory, we find that all else equal, men over-emerge as leaders. However, Expectancy Violation Theory suggests that women are likely to benefit from a countervailing bias. Specifically, women are attributed with higher levels of leadership emergence than men when they engage in agentic leadership behaviors—even if the level of the behaviors exhibited by men is exactly the same. Because the impact of these behaviors on leadership effectiveness is not contingent on gender, however, women who engage in more task behaviors and boundary spanning behaviors in self-managing teams also over-emerge as leaders. We discuss the implications of this study for Gender Role Theory and Expectancy Violation Theory, along with practical implications for managing the problem of leadership over-emergence in work groups.

Self-managing teams are popular structures that enable organizations to remain competitive and to adapt to dynamic business environments (Druskat & Wheeler, 2003; Ilgen, Hollenbeck, Johnson & Jundt, 2005; Roberson & Williamson, 2012; Stewart & Manz, 1995). Typically, these teams have no organizationally assigned leaders, but instead, leaders emerge informally (Neubert & Taggar, 2004; Taggar, Hackett, & Saha, 1999). Because emergent leaders play an important role in self-managing teams, much attention has been devoted to identifying individual characteristics and behaviors associated with leader emergence (Eagly & Karau, 1991; Ensari, Riggio, Christian, & Carslaw, 2011; Judge, Bono, Ilies, & Gerhardt, 2002).

As one might expect, much of the focus devoted to leadership emergence has been toward leadership development with the expressed intent of helping individuals emerge as leaders (Yost & Plunkett,

2009). Indeed, the presumption characterizing almost all of this research is that if one *could* emerge as a leader, he or she *should* emerge as a leader (e.g., Zhang, Waldman, & Wang, 2012). In some cases, this presumption is valid, in the sense that certain traits like intelligence and self-efficacy are associated at roughly equal levels with leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness (Foti & Hauenstein, 2007). However, in other cases, factors predicting leadership emergence differ from those predicting leadership effectiveness, and a critical implication of this empirical fact is that the person who emerges as a leader may wind up being ineffective in that role.

For example, meta-analytic evidence suggests that the correlation between extraversion and leadership emergence is higher than the correlation between extraversion and leadership effectiveness (Judge et al., 2002). This means that the likelihood that a highly extraverted individual will emerge as the leader is actually greater than the likelihood that that person will be successful as a leader. Formally, we define leadership over-emergence as cases when an individual's leadership emergence (expressed in descriptive terms), is actually higher than that individual's leadership effectiveness (expressed in

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normative terms). Recognition of this phenomenon means that in some instances, the wrong person might emerge as a leader of a group or the right person may fail to emerge as a leader. Indeed, we believe that inappropriate leadership emergence is an important, but overlooked phenomenon in the organizational literature.

One particularly important characteristic that may be related to leadership over-emergence is gender. Eagly's (1987) Gender Role Theory¹ suggests that due to gender-specific societal role and behavioral expectations, men are expected to possess agentic qualities (e.g., assertiveness, confidence, and independence) and to engage in behaviors that are congruent with a leader role. Women, on the other hand, are expected to possess communal qualities (helpfulness, nurturance, kindness) and to engage in behaviors that are incongruent with a leader role (Eagly & Karau, 2002). The impact of gender on leadership emergence, however, tends to be greater than the impact of gender on leadership effectiveness (e.g., DeRue, Nahrgang, Wellman, & Humphrey, 2011; Eagly, Karau, & Makhijani, 1995), suggesting a bias against women that sets the stage for over-emergence of male leaders.

Although early empirical evaluations of Gender Role Theory posited that agentic behaviors may help women overcome gender bias (Eagly & Karau, 1991; Rudman & Glick, 1999), later applications of the theory downplayed this possibility and warned that women who perform agentic behaviors may experience backlash and be penalized in terms of career prospects (Carli, 2010; Heilman, Wallen, Fuchs, & Tamkins, 2004). The evidence for backlash against agentic women, however, suggests that the context wherein these behaviors are enacted matters (e.g., Heilman, 2012), and that women who perform agentic behaviors in self-managing teams may incur little cost. Instead, Expectancy Violation Theory (Jussim, Coleman, & Lerch, 1987) predicts that when women engage in positive behaviors that are prototypical leader behaviors, but atypical for the gender stereotype, they are likely to be evaluated *more* positively than men who engage in the exact same behaviors. Thus, Expectancy Violation Theory proposes a countervailing perceptual bias that works in

favor of women who perform agentic behaviors in self-managing teams. However, since there is no evidence that the relationship between engaging in leader behaviors and leadership effectiveness is contingent on gender, this sets up the potential for leadership over-emergence for these women.

The purpose of this study is to draw from Gender Role Theory (Eagly, 1987) and Expectancy Violation Theory (Jussim et al., 1987) to examine the role of gender with respect to leadership emergence, leadership effectiveness, and leadership over-emergence. Both theories help generate propositions regarding how gender triggers biases when it comes to perceptions of leadership emergence and the potential for leadership over-emergence in self-managing teams. Self-managing teams represent an important boundary condition with regards to when either theory offers testable predictions for leadership over-emergence. Specifically, Gender Role Theory speaks more directly to why gender is associated with bias and over-emergence in self-managing teams, whereas Expectancy Violation Theory speaks more directly to how behaviors performed by both men and women in self-managing teams carry individuating information likely to influence gender bias and over-emergence.

We propose that, all else equal, men will over-emerge as leaders in self-managing teams due to the effect of gender bias articulated by Gender Role Theory. On the other hand, women who engage in team-relevant agentic behaviors will over-emerge as leaders relative to men enacting the exact same behaviors due to the alternative gender bias articulated by Expectancy Violation Theory. The relative impact of these countervailing biases will be empirically documented and leveraged to help achieve a more refined understanding of the role of gender with respect to perceptions of leadership emergence, leadership effectiveness, and leadership over-emergence in self-managing teams.

THEORETICAL DEVELOPMENT AND HYPOTHESES

We draw from Gender Role Theory (Eagly 1987; Eagly & Karau, 1991) to posit that men over-emerge as leaders in self-managing teams because this theory predicts that men are viewed as more appropriate for leadership positions. Furthermore, we draw from Expectancy Violation Theory (Jussim et al., 1987) and recent developments in Gender Role Theory to argue that women who perform agentic behaviors (task and boundary spanning

¹ Gender role theory (Eagly & Karau, 1991) is also known as Social Role Theory in the literature (Eagly, 1987; Eagly & Karau, 2002). We refer to it as Gender Role Theory in this manuscript to be consistent with work by Eagly and Karau (1991) on gender and leadership emergence in self-managing teams.

behaviors) and men who perform social behaviors will trigger biases that work in their favor such that they will over-emerge as leaders in self-managing teams.

It is important to note that Gender Role Theory and Expectancy Violation Theory have two key elements in common. First, both theories describe perceptual biases. The expectancy violation effect is also a perceptual bias, in the sense that if a woman engages in the same level of agentic behavior as a man, the woman will get more perceptual credit for it when it comes to emergence (e.g., Anderson, Lievens, van Dam, & Born, 2006). Thus, although the perceptual bias triggered by counter-stereotypical behavior and described by Expectancy Violation Theory works in a countervailing direction relative to gender bias articulated by Gender Role Theory—it is still a bias.

Second, neither theory recognizes the potential for leadership over-emergence due to gender bias and the problem this poses for both genders. More specifically, neither Gender Role Theory nor Expectancy Violation Theory assert that the effect of any leader behavior (task, boundary, or social) on team outcomes is contingent upon gender (and indeed there is no evidence to support this assertion). Thus, any perceptual bias that promotes differential leadership emergence but not differential leadership effectiveness attributable to gender could promote over-emergence. We examine these possibilities in a sample of self-managing teams where team members observed and rated each-other's behaviors over several months.

Gender and Leadership Over-Emergence: Predictions by Gender Role Theory

Gender Role Theory (Eagly 1987; Eagly & Karau, 1991) proposes that gender creates shared social role expectations of how men and women ought to behave that affect people's perceptions in the workplace. This is because gender roles represent a collection of descriptive and injunctive expectations about women and men (Eagly & Karau, 2002). For example, "men are considered more leader-like, intellectual, analytical, able to think abstractly, and able to solve problems, whereas women are considered kinder, warmer, more expressive, more supportive, and gentler" (Carli, 2010: 343). According to this theory, gender automatically activates stereotypical expectations that favor men over women for leadership positions.

Since empirical evidence suggests that women and men differ little in their leadership effectiveness ratings (DeRue et al., 2011), this tendency for men to be perceived as more appropriate for leadership positions relative to women is a clear subjective gender bias (Eagly & Carli, 2007; Koenig, Eagly, Mitchell, & Ristikari, 2011). This bias may be overcome when leaders are formally selected by the organization via standardized, objective, and validated procedures that may be used in conjunction with diversity initiatives. However, in self-managing teams, where leaders are not formally selected via professionally validated processes, but rather emerge informally based upon the subjective perceptions of team members, the role of gender bias becomes more salient (Eagly & Karau, 1991; Hall, Workman, & Marchioro, 1998; Neubert & Taggar, 2004).

Leadership emergence is defined as "being perceived as leaderlike" (Kaiser, Hogan, & Craig, 2008: 97) and measures of emergence tend to focus on descriptive terms related to a person's influence and dominance in a group setting. Leadership effectiveness, on the other hand, is defined as "others' judgment of a person's performance as a leader" (Kaiser et al., 2008: 98) and measures of effectiveness focus on normative terms related to whether someone's performance as a leader is good versus bad. Leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness are both "perceptual categories of leadership" where emergence captures descriptive perceptions that a team member "stands out" in terms of influence, whereas effectiveness captures normative perceptions of "approval" for one's performance as a leader (Kaiser et al., 2008: 98). Research examining the impact of gender on leadership emergence has not examined its joint effects on leadership effectiveness. This oversight is puzzling given that emergence and effectiveness are closely intertwined socially constructed phenomena. Because leadership emergence and effectiveness focus on characteristics of the individual being rated, they are both subject to perceptual biases (Kaiser et al., 2008); however, gender ought to influence perceptions of leader emergence more strongly than perceptions of leader effectiveness.

A major reason why gender is likely to have a bigger impact on perceptions of leadership emergence relative to perceptions of leadership effectiveness can be traced to information processing differences associated with the two inferences. For instance, in a leadership context, socio-demographic gender automatically triggers stereotypes and attributions that

influence perceptions of leadership emergence (leaders are men, Ayman & Korabik, 2010; Hall et al., 1998; Scott & Brown, 2006). Perceptions of leadership emergence are largely driven by recognition-based priming that is heavily influenced by surface-level individual differences such as gender that operate at relatively low levels of awareness (e.g., Ayman & Korabik, 2010; Carton & Rosette, 2011; Hall et al., 1998).

Leader effectiveness, on the other hand, requires more deliberate, conscious information processing effort that relies at least partially on external feedback from the environment regarding the level of the team's success (or failure), as well as attributions for that success (or failure). In most cases, information about team performance is relatively unambiguous, and most teams receive feedback about their performance from external constituents on a regular basis (e.g., external management, other units in the organization, clients).

Indeed, the most common conceptualization and measurement of leader effectiveness is the extent to which "the leader's organizational unit performs its task successfully and attains its goals" (Yukl, 2006: 10) and effectiveness is often rated in terms of the leader's contribution to "profit growth, market share, and sales increase" (Manz & Sims, 1987: 110). Thus, to some degree, ratings of leader effectiveness are influenced by objective indicators of performance of the group or of the unit. Consequentially, the impact of gender on perceptions of effectiveness should be weaker than its corresponding influence on emergence because stereotype-based perceptions tend to be weaker in the presence of such diagnostic information (Kunda & Thagard, 1996).

Illustrating this point, a comprehensive meta-analysis on personality and leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness conducted by Judge and colleagues (2002) indicated that several personality traits are more strongly related to leadership emergence perceptions than to leadership effectiveness perceptions. Thus, whereas easily observable individual differences such as gender may give rise to automatic and biased perceptions of leader emergence, these same traits are likely to have less impact on more controlled and evidence-based perceptions of leadership effectiveness. Consistent with these arguments, we predict that men will over-emerge as leaders because the effect of gender on leadership emergence perceptions is stronger than the effect of gender on leadership effectiveness perceptions. Hence, we hypothesize the following:

Hypothesis 1. Men over-emerge as leaders to a larger extent relative to women in self-managing teams.

Self-Managing Teams as Context for Leadership Over-Emergence

From a behavioral perspective, as Stogdill's (1948: 66) noted, "Leadership implies activity, movement, getting work done" and Katz and Kahn (1978) identified three main categories of leader behavior that contribute to group performance: task direction, psychological supportiveness, and boundary spanning behaviors. Building on this earlier work, Mumford and his colleagues (Mumford, Campion, & Morgeson, 2006; Mumford, Van Iddekinge, Morgeson, & Campion, 2008) developed a typology of team-relevant behaviors that they collapsed into three larger categories of task, boundary spanning, and social behaviors.

Task behaviors refer to activities that contribute to the team's main responsibilities such as completing team-relevant tasks. Boundary spanning behaviors consist of coordination and consultation with outside constituents aiming to procure resources that facilitate team performance. Social behaviors represent interpersonal behaviors that maintain the social climate of the team, such as paying attention to others' feelings. All three types of leader behaviors contribute to team performance because they facilitate goal accomplishment (Hawkins, 1995; Galanes, 2003; Morgeson, DeRue, & Karam, 2010; Morris & Hackman, 1969).

When viewed from the perspective of Gender Role Theory, task and boundary spanning behaviors have agentic qualities because of their assertive and take-charge nature (e.g., Anderson et al., 2006; Burke et al., 2006). Task behaviors are perceived as masculine and agentic because they imply assertiveness and ability to lead (Berdahl, 1996; Eagly & Karau, 1991; Wood & Karten, 1986). Boundary spanning behaviors are task-focused and agentic because they are "more highly related to the leader's role as a director than as a facilitator" (Burke et al., 2006: 292). Social behaviors, on the other hand, have communal qualities because of their helpful and sensitive nature (e.g., Scott & Brown, 2006). Thus, whereas task and boundary behaviors are agentic because they are task-focused and instrumental in nature, social behaviors are communal because they facilitate and support the psychological context of the team. Based upon this distinction, one might predict that women could

overcome gender bias by engaging in assertive and take charge agentic behaviors.

Indeed, early applications of Gender Role Theory seemed to suggest just that. For example, meta-analytical examinations of gender and leadership emergence suggested that compared to men, women emerged as leaders to a lesser extent and performed fewer agentic behaviors in leaderless groups (Eagly & Karau, 1991). The authors stated that the findings “might be taken to imply that the best way for women to achieve leadership is to emulate male behavior” (705). Similarly, Rudman and Glick (1999: 1009) who studied agentic women concluded that “matching men on agency is necessary for women to counteract perceptions that they are insufficiently qualified for high status jobs.”

Later developments of Gender Role Theory, however, cautioned that agentic behaviors may result in backlash for women (Eagly & Carli, 2007). For example, Eagly and Karau (2002) stated that: “In general, the competent task contributions of women are more likely to be ignored or to evoke negative reactions than those of men” (p. 584). That is, on one hand, women are perceived as more communal and less agentic than men, and while this view is consistent with their gender role as women, it is incongruent with a leader role. On the other hand, when women display agentic behaviors that are consistent with a leader role, they are perceived as presumptuous because such behaviors are incongruent with their gender role (Koenig et al., 2011; Livingston, Rosette, & Washington, 2012). Thus, women who try to assume a leadership role by engaging in agentic behaviors may be penalized because they are presumed to lack legitimacy for leadership positions (Carli, 2010).

Empirical evidence on whether agentic behaviors help or hurt women are mixed suggesting that the context wherein these behaviors are enacted matters (e.g., Heilman, 2012). For example, some studies show that women who perform agentic behaviors experience backlash along communal dimensions and opportunities for organizational rewards (e.g., Heilman et al., 2004; Rudman, 1998; Rudman & Glick, 1999). Other studies show that women suffer backlash for agentic behaviors only in the presence of ambiguity about their contribution to group tasks (e.g., Heilman & Haynes, 2005). Finally, a third set of studies show that women actually benefit from agentic behaviors (e.g., Anderson et al., 2006; Post, DiTomaso, Lowe, Ferris, & Cordero, 2009; Rosette & Tost, 2010).

These findings underscore the importance of the contextual factors associated with the nature of the

team that is being led. Although agentic behaviors may result in backlash when enacted by women in some settings, this is less likely to happen in the context of self-managing teams. Specifically, self-managing teams are interdependent groups where members evaluate each other's contributions to the team frequently and carefully (Barker, 1993). Prior research suggests that the presence of such diagnostic information about individual performance reduces backlash against agentic women (Heilman & Haynes, 2005; Rosette & Tost, 2010).

Furthermore, infrequent stereotype-inconsistent information (e.g., women performing agentic behaviors) may be disregarded and dismissed as a fluke in short term interactions where there is little at stake. On the other hand, persistent stereotype inconsistent behavior enacted by women in self-managing teams, which typically interact over longer periods of time on consequential tasks, may make expectancy violations more salient for other team members (e.g., Fiske & Taylor, 2013). Thus, whereas backlash against agentic women may occur in more short-term teams working on tasks of marginal significance, this may be less likely to take place in long-term self-managing teams where each team member has a critical stake in the team's outcomes.

Indeed, Expectancy Violation Theory would suggest that performance of task and boundary spanning behaviors may even benefit women in self-managing teams. According to this theory, when individuals engage in positive stereotype-defying behaviors, they may often get more perceptual credit for those behaviors relative to individuals for whom these behaviors are stereotype confirming (e.g., Jussim et al., 1987).

Leadership Behaviors and Leadership Over-Emergence: Predictions by Expectancy Violation Theory

Expectancy Violation Theory suggests that individual qualities and behaviors that run counter to stereotype-based expectations are evaluated even more extremely in the direction of the expectancy violation (Jussim et al., 1987). A large body of research has tested predictions of Expectancy Violation Theory with regards to race, ethnicity, and gender stereotypes (Anderson et al., 2006; Avery, McKay, Wilson, & Tonidandel, 2007; Bettencourt, Dill, Greathouse, Charlton, & Mulholland, 1997; Jackson, Sullivan, & Hodge, 1993; Jussim et al., 1987). Overall, this work indicates that positive expectancy-disconfirming behaviors attract perceptual attention

from others (Stangor & McMillan, 1992) and contribute disproportionately to evaluations of actors.

Thus, according to Expectancy Violation Theory, individuals who perform positive behaviors not expected of them based upon stereotypes will be evaluated even more positively than others who perform similar behaviors but who are expected to do so (Jussim et al., 1987). Viewed from the perspective of Expectancy Violation Theory, women who perform agentic behaviors ought to be rated more positively than men who perform the exact same behaviors. These expectations parallel findings that continued exposure to female leaders reduces gender bias (Dasgupta & Asgari, 2004; Duehr & Bono, 2006), and arguments that individuating information counters category-based biases (Fiske, Lin, & Neuberg, 1999; Fiske & Neuberg, 1990).

Consistent with arguments by Expectancy Violation theory, several studies suggest that women can benefit from agentic behaviors in some instances. For example, Heilman and Haynes (2005) found that bias against women in leadership roles was mitigated when observers were provided with information that women contributed uniquely and effectively to work team tasks. Similarly, Post and coauthors (2008) found that women who were perceived to be innovative were rated as more promotable by their managers than men who were perceived to be innovative. The women in these studies performed agentic behaviors that benefited the group.

Recent developments in Gender Role Theory suggest that women who perform other-advocating agentic behavior do not experience backlash (Amanatullah & Morris, 2010; Amanatullah & Tinsley, 2013). Thus, women who engage in agentic behaviors that aim to benefit the group—such as task and boundary behaviors enacted in self-managing teams—ought to be evaluated even more positively than men who perform these behaviors. This occurs because these women experience little backlash from performance of team-relevant agentic behaviors as per Gender Role Theory, and because they are viewed as more leaderlike than equivalent men as per Expectancy Violation Theory.

Furthermore, agentic behaviors impact perceptions of emergence more strongly because agentic behaviors are more important for leadership emergence than communal behaviors (Carli, 2010; Eagly & Karau, 1991). For example, Carli (2010) stated that leadership emergence is “more often associated with agentic behavior, such as task contributions, than with communal behavior” (p.341). On the other

hand, theory and empirical evidence show that agentic and communal behaviors are both important for leadership effectiveness (DeRue et al., 2011). Given that agency is important for leadership emergence and that women receive more perceptual credit for team-relevant agentic behaviors, women who engage in these behaviors in self-managing teams ought to over-emerge as leaders to a larger extent than men who perform these same behaviors.

Consistent these arguments, we propose that due to their agentic nature, task and boundary spanning behaviors will lead to higher subjective ratings of leadership emergence for women relative to men who engage in the same level of such behaviors. In addition, we expect that the impact of agentic behaviors will be stronger on women's ratings of leadership emergence than ratings of effectiveness, thus triggering over-emergence in self-managing teams. Consequentially, we hypothesize the following:

Hypothesis 2. Women who engage in task-related behaviors over-emerge as leaders to a larger extent relative to men who engage in task-related behaviors.

Hypothesis 3. Women who engage in boundary spanning behaviors over-emerge as leaders to a larger extent relative to men who engage in boundary spanning behaviors.

In contrast to task-related and boundary spanning behaviors which are agentic in nature, social behaviors are communal and expected of women (Burke et al., 2006; Eagly & Karau, 1991). Hence, women who engage in communal behaviors are not violating gender expectations and should not experience any countervailing perceptual bias that works in their favor. On the other hand, men who perform a high frequency of social behaviors engage in gender incongruent behaviors (Kulik & Olekalns, 2012). Men's emergence as leaders ought to be accentuated when they engage in social behaviors because these behaviors are not expected of them. Lending support to this expectation, Heilman and Chen (2005) found that altruistic citizenship behavior – a behavior stereotypically associated with the female gender role—resulted in more favorable reactions when performed by men than women. For these reasons, we predict that men who perform more social behaviors will over-emerge as leaders to a larger extent than women, thus testing the “gender-neutral” nature of this process. Hence:

Hypothesis 4. Men who engage in social behaviors over-emerge as leaders to a larger extent relative to women who engage in social behaviors.

METHODS

Participants

The sample for this study consisted of 181 students enrolled in a full time Master's of Business Administration (MBA) program at a large research university in the United States. Students were assigned to 5-person self-managing teams and they remained in these teams for their entire first year in the MBA program. Because team projects contributed considerably to course grades, teams were composed to be comparable across a number of demographic data likely to contribute to team performance (e.g., age, gender composition, MBA concentration, work experience, undergraduate major). Of the 181 students, 130 (71.8%) were men and 51 (28.2%) were women. There was at least one woman per team (mean = 1.4 women per team). This gender composition is representative of MBA programs in the country (Kelan & Jones, 2010). The average age of the sample was 27.6 (SD = 3.7), and the average work experience was 51 months (SD = 34.7).

Procedure

This was a longitudinal study where data were collected at three different time periods. First, participants completed a one-time survey approximately two months before starting the MBA program and before they met their team members. This survey measured personal data and individual traits (extraversion, agreeableness, and conscientiousness). Second, after approximately 6 weeks of frequent interactions with their team members, participants rated each of their team members on task, boundary spanning, and social behaviors. Finally, approximately four months after the second wave, participants rated each of their team members on leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness. Thus, with the exception of personal data and traits, all participant behaviors were rated by an average of four team-members. During the surveying period, all students took the same classes, had the same instructors, and participated in the same class-related team activities.

Measures: Independent Variables

Gender. Gender was a dummy variable such that women were coded 1 and men were coded 0.

Task-related Behaviors. We used 20 items developed by Mumford and coauthors (2006, 2008) to measure task-related behaviors. Items tapped on task-relevant behaviors such as planning and organizing team tasks and sharing task knowledge with the team. Each team-member rated all other team members on these items by indicating the extent to which they performed these behaviors. Example items are: "organizes the team's work to get important work done on time," "coordinates the work done by others so that things are done in the right order," "shares with the team any knowledge he/she has about the work to be done." The response anchor was a 5-point Likert scale where "1 = not at all" and "5 = to a very great extent." The average internal consistency for task behaviors was $\alpha = 0.93$ (computed as the average coefficient α across the four raters). The ICC(1) for the task-related behaviors scale across raters was = 0.36, and ICC(2) was = 0.69. We also computed r_{wg} following procedures by James, Demaree, and Wolf (1984) for multiple-item scales. Task behaviors had an average $r_{wg(j)} = 0.97$. These three statistics indicate that there was interrater agreement for task-related behaviors. Therefore, following recommendations regarding aggregation of perceptual variables in group settings (Bliese, 2000; James, 1982; James et al., 1984), we computed an overall score of task behaviors by aggregating across raters.

Boundary Spanning Behaviors. Boundary spanning behaviors were measured with 8 items developed by Mumford and coauthors (2006; 2008). These items assessed the extent to which team members coordinated with people outside the team to acquire resources that would help team performance. Similar to task behaviors, boundary spanning behaviors for each team member were rated by all other team members. Example items are: "goes outside the team to bring in new resources that help the team work effectively," "interacts with people outside the team to get special knowledge about the work, project, or task," "interacts with people outside the team to present the team and its accomplishments in a favorable light." The response scale ranged from 1 to 5, where "1 = not at all" and "5 = to a very great extent." The average internal consistency for boundary spanning behaviors was $\alpha = 0.90$. The ICC(1) for boundary spanning behaviors was 0.12, ICC(2) = 0.35, and average $r_{wg(j)}$ was 0.88. Because of agreement among raters, we collapsed ratings of boundary spanning behaviors into one overall score for each team member.

Social Behaviors. We measured social behaviors with 12 items by Mumford and coauthors (2006;

2008). These items asked team members to rate each of the other team members on the extent to which they listened to the thoughts and personal feelings of other team members and supported the work of others on the team. Example items are “listens carefully to the thoughts and feelings of others,” “helps settle conflict between team members,” “supports team members in their work.” The response format was a five-point scale (1 = not at all; 5 = to a very great extent). Coefficient α for social behaviors was 0.93. ICC(1) was 0.28, ICC(2) = 0.61, and average $r_{wg(j)}$ = 0.93 justifying aggregation of social behavior ratings across raters.

Measures: Dependent Variables

Leadership Emergence. We used seven items to measure leadership emergence adapted from Lord, Foti, and De Vader (1984), Kent and Moss (1994), and Taggar, Hackett, and Saha (1999). Team members were asked to indicate the degree to which each team member emerged as the leader via items that were descriptive of whether they led or did not lead, but were not normative in terms of whether that leadership was effective or ineffective. Example items asked if the individual “exhibits leadership in the team,” “assumes leadership in the team,” “influences the team,” “influences team decisions,” “leads the conversation in team.” The response scale for these items ranged from 1 to 5, where “1 = Almost Never” and “5 = Almost Always.” Average internal consistency for leadership emergence across all raters was α = 0.95. ICC(1) was 0.42, ICC(2) = 0.74, and average $r_{wg(j)}$ = 0.90, justifying aggregation of leadership emergence ratings across raters for each team member.

Leadership Effectiveness. We measured leadership effectiveness with 11 items adapted from Giessner and van Knippenberg, (2008). Team members were asked to indicate the degree to which various team members were effective as leaders using normative language. Team members were asked to rate the leadership effectiveness of each team member using a response scale from 1 to 5, where “1 = Strongly Disagree” and “5 = Strongly Agree.” Example items asked if the individual “is a very good leader,” “is very effective,” “helps our group achieve success,” “makes good decisions,” “teaches people how to improve.” Internal consistency for leadership effectiveness across raters was α = 0.94. ICC(1) was 0.29, ICC(2) = 0.62, and average $r_{wg(j)}$ = 0.95; therefore we aggregated leadership effectiveness across raters.

We conducted a set of confirmatory factor analyses to examine the factor structure of our leadership measures. Because there are 58 items across our 5 leadership measures, we followed prior research and created four parcels of items for each measure to allow for a favorable item to sample size ratio (e.g., Bagozzi & Edwards, 1998). The five-factor theoretical model where task behaviors, boundary spanning behaviors, social behaviors, leadership emergence, and leadership effectiveness items loaded on their respective factors fit the data relatively well: CFI = 0.96, TLI = 0.96; RMSEA = 0.07; χ^2 = 680.67, df = 160, p < .01.

We compared this five-factor model to several alternative models using χ^2 difference tests. χ^2 difference tests showed that the five-factor model fit the data significantly better than a four factor model combining leadership emergence and effectiveness items into one overall factor ($\Delta\chi^2$ = 819.69; df = 4, p < .01). Fit of this four factor model was CFI = 0.91, TLI = 0.89, RMSEA = 0.11, χ^2 = 1500.36; df = 164. The five-factor model also fit better than a four factor model collapsing task behaviors and leadership emergence items on one factor: CFI = 0.77, RMSEA = 0.17, χ^2 = 3560.30, df = 164; χ^2 difference test results were $\Delta\chi^2$ = 2879.63; df = 4, p < .01. Finally, the five-factor model was also a better fit to the data than a four factor model, which collapsed task behaviors and boundary spanning items on the same factor. The fit of this four factor model was CFI = 0.86, RMSEA = 0.13, χ^2 = 2253.08, df = 164; χ^2 difference tests results were $\Delta\chi^2$ = 1572.41; df = 4, p < .01. In their entirety, these tests support the construct distinctiveness of our five leadership measures.

Leadership Over-Emergence. Leadership over-emergence was conceptualized as the relative effect size difference that the independent variables had on leadership emergence vs. leadership effectiveness in multilevel multivariate analyses. In order to prevent “apples versus oranges” comparisons that would confound the results associated with either component of over-emergence, it was critical to keep the timing and source for each of the two different components constant.

Measures: Control Variables

Although the primary focus of this study was on gender, we controlled for extraversion, conscientiousness, and agreeableness because prior research has shown that these relate to both leadership emergence and effectiveness (DeRue et al., 2011;

Ensari et al., 2011; Grant, Gino, & Hofmann, 2011; Judge et al., 2002; Marinova, Moon, & Kamdar, 2013). Thus, any effects detected in this study for gender cannot be attributed to potential personality differences between the men and women in this sample.

Agreeableness. Agreeableness was measured with 10 items from the International Personality Item Pool (IPIP) (Goldberg, 1999). Participants indicated whether the items tended to describe their general pattern of behavior on a scale of 1 to 5, where represented “1 = very inaccurately” and “5 = very accurately” (e.g., I sympathize with others’ feelings). Internal consistency for agreeableness was $\alpha = 0.81$.

Conscientiousness. We measured conscientiousness also with 10 items from IPIP (Goldberg, 1999: e.g., “I am always prepared”). The response format was on a five-point scale, same as agreeableness. Internal consistency for conscientiousness was $\alpha = 0.86$.

Extraversion. Extraversion was assessed with 10 items from IPIP (Goldberg, 1999: e.g., “I start conversations”). The response format was on the same five-point scale as for agreeableness and conscientiousness and internal consistency was $\alpha = 0.86$.

RESULTS

Descriptive statistics, including means, standard deviations, and intercorrelations for the focal variables are presented in Table 1. Because of the nested nature of the data (team members nested within teams), we tested our hypotheses via multilevel multivariate analyses in Mplus 7.11 by utilizing the “Type = Complex” cluster approach (Muthén & Muthén, 1998/2012). Multivariate regressions are appropriate given our research questions because

they test the effects of the independent variables on the dependent variables while taking into account their linear association (Tabachnick & Fidell, 2007). Furthermore, multivariate regressions decompose the effects of each independent variable on leadership emergence vs. leadership effectiveness allowing us to reach statistical conclusions about the phenomenon of leadership over-emergence.

In line with Gender Role Theory, Hypothesis 1 stated that men over-emerge as leaders in self-managing teams. Controlling for agreeableness, conscientiousness, and extraversion, the effect of gender on perceptions of leadership emergence was significant ($B = -0.24, p < .05$) but the effect of gender on leadership effectiveness perceptions was not ($B = -0.06, n.s.$) (Table 2). To ascertain whether men over-emerged as leaders, we further estimated the effect difference of gender on leadership emergence vs. effectiveness in Mplus. Gender had a significantly larger effect on leadership emergence than on leadership effectiveness ($B = -0.17, p < .05$), supporting Hypothesis 1 that men over-emerge as leaders in self-managing teams.

In supplementary tests of Hypothesis 1, we found that the effect of gender on leadership over-emergence remained significant when controlling for boundary and social behaviors (whether we controlled for these separately or together), but that it became non-significant when task behaviors were added to that regression (see Table 3 for the full regression). Thus, the effect of gender on leadership over-emergence may be due to real differences in task behaviors that stem from social stereotypes and expectations, or it may be due to gender bias that is triggered when these agentic behaviors are perceived.

TABLE 1
Descriptive Statistics and Inter-Correlations Among Variables

Variable	Mean	SD	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
1 Gender (1 = Female)	0.28	0.45									
2 Agreeableness	4.19	0.50	0.17*	0.81							
3 Conscientiousness	3.89	0.66	-0.13	0.34**	0.86						
4 Extraversion	3.63	0.64	0.12	0.36**	0.16*	0.86					
5 Task Behaviors	3.53	0.44	-0.25**	-0.03	0.06	0.06	0.93				
6 Boundary Behaviors	3.00	0.44	0.09	0.06	0.03	0.17*	0.58**	0.90			
7 Social Behaviors	3.68	0.48	0.05	0.08	0.00	0.04	0.53**	0.52**	0.93		
8 Leadership Emergence	3.40	0.68	-0.17*	0.00	0.12	0.11	0.72**	0.46**	0.43**	0.95	
9 Leadership Effectiveness	3.76	0.50	-0.07	0.05	0.09	0.04	0.59**	0.43**	0.65**	0.77**	0.94

Note: $n = 177-181$; Reliabilities are shown in the diagonal.

* $p < .05$

** $p < .01$

TABLE 2
Multivariate Regression Estimates for Hypothesis 1: Effects of Gender on Leadership Emergence and Effectiveness

Variable	Leadership Emergence		Leadership Effectiveness	
	B	t-value	B	t-value
Agreeableness	-0.07	-0.68	0.03	0.36
Conscientiousness	0.10	0.94	0.05	0.76
Extraversion	0.14	1.66	0.02	0.31
Gender (1 = Women)	-0.24	-2.18*	-0.06	-0.76

Note: Level 1 $n = 177$; no. of clusters = 37; unstandardized coefficients are reported.

* $p < .05$

Expectancy Violation Theory (Jussim et al., 1987) suggests that when women perform agentic behaviors not expected of them (e.g., task and boundary spanning behaviors), they will be evaluated even more positively than men who engage in the same behaviors. Similarly, Gender Role Theory suggests that group-oriented agentic behaviors result in less backlash and may even benefit women (Amanatullah & Tinsley, 2013; Eagly & Karau, 2002). These arguments give rise to an expectancy violation bias that ought to work in favor of women who perform agentic behaviors. Consequentially, Hypothesis 2 posited that women who engage in task-related behaviors will over-emerge as leaders because (a) the effect of these behaviors on leadership emergence perceptions for women is stronger relative to the effect of these same behaviors for men, but (b) the effect of these behaviors on leadership effectiveness perceptions for women is not stronger relative to the effect of these same behaviors for men.

TABLE 3
Supplementary Tests of Hypothesis 1

Variable	Leadership Emergence		Leadership Effectiveness	
	B	t-value	B	t-value
Agreeableness	-0.04	-0.42	0.00	0.00
Conscientiousness	0.09	1.60	0.06	1.50
Extraversion	0.05	1.01	-0.01	-0.29
Task Behaviors	1.02	6.92**	0.40	4.50**
Boundary Behaviors	0.07	0.55	-0.02	-0.22
Social Behaviors	0.09	0.98	0.49	5.80**
Gender (1 = Women)	-0.02	-0.23	0.01	0.13

Note: Level 1 $n = 177$; no. of clusters = 37; unstandardized coefficients are reported.

** $p < .01$

In support of Hypothesis 2, we found that women who performed task-related behaviors emerged as leaders to a larger extent than men ($B = 0.37, p < .05$) but that there were no differences in leadership effectiveness between men and women who performed task behaviors ($B = 0.10$ n.s.) (Table 4). Figure 1 illustrates the multilevel multivariate interaction effects.

Over-emergence occurred if the effect of task behaviors was stronger on leadership emergence vs. effectiveness, and if this effect was stronger for women vs. men. To further decompose these effects, we ran multilevel multivariate multigroup (men vs. women) analyses in Mplus (Muthén & Muthén, 1998/2012), constraining the two groups to be equal across the control variables to facilitate comparisons. These analyses revealed that the impact of task behaviors on leadership emergence for women was $B = 1.27 (p < .01)$, and for men it was $B = 0.91 (p < .01)$. Thus, the relationship between engaging in task-related behaviors and perceptions of leadership emergence was stronger for women relative to men who engaged in the exact same behaviors and the effect difference was $B = 0.36 (p < .05)$. On the other hand, the effect of task behaviors on leadership effectiveness for women was $B = 0.48 (p < .05)$ and for men it was $B = 0.37 (p < .05)$, but these effects did not differ by gender ($B = 0.11$, n.s.).

Hence, the over-emergence effect for women who engaged in task-related behaviors was $B = 0.80 (p < .01)$ and the over-emergence effect for men who engaged in task-related behaviors was $B = 0.54 (p < .01)$. Compared to men who engaged in task-related

TABLE 4
Multivariate Regression Estimates for Hypothesis 2: The Interactive Effects of Gender and Task Behaviors

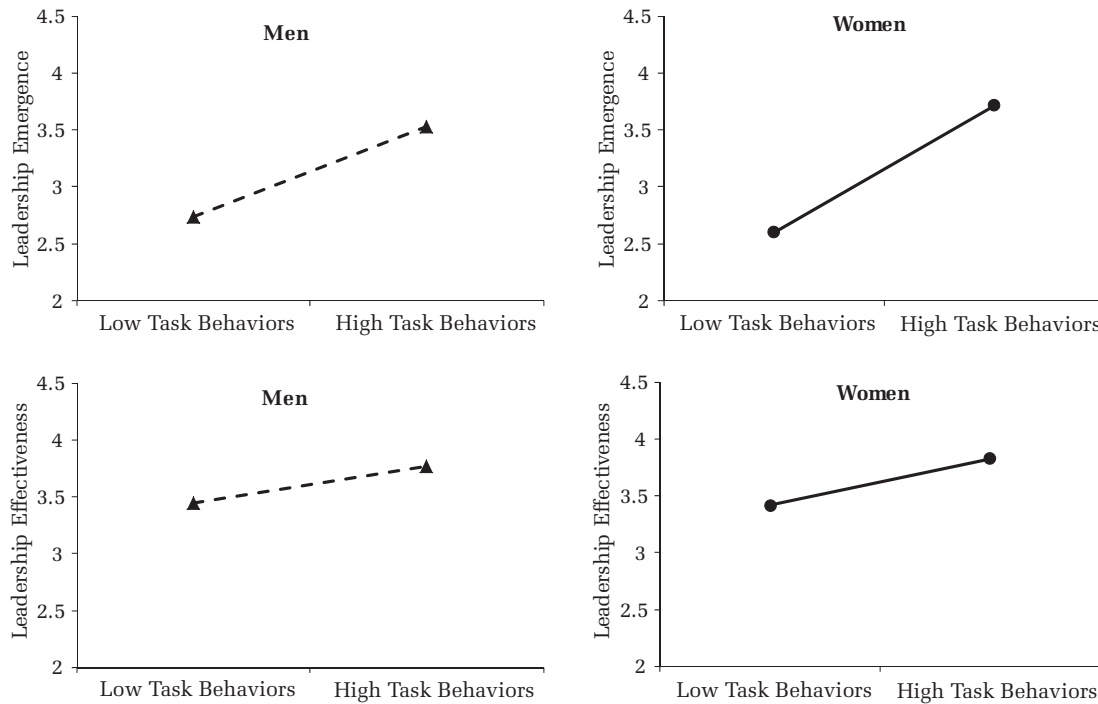
Variable	Leadership Emergence		Leadership Effectiveness	
	B	t-value	B	t-value
Agreeableness	-0.06	-0.67	-0.01	-0.08
Conscientiousness	0.09	1.85	0.06	1.59
Extraversion	0.05	0.95	-0.01	-0.31
Gender (1 = Women)	0.02	0.28	0.02	0.34
Task Behaviors	0.91	5.90**	0.37	4.27**
Boundary Behaviors	0.03	0.28	-0.03	-0.31
Social Behaviors	0.11	1.32	0.50	6.00**
Task X Gender	0.37	2.55*	0.10	0.84

Note: Level 1 $n = 177$; no. of clusters = 37; unstandardized coefficients are reported.

* $p < .05$

** $p < .01$

FIGURE 1
Effects of Task Behaviors on Leadership Over-Emergence for Men vs. Women



behaviors, women who engaged in task-related behaviors over-emerged as leaders to a larger extent: $B = 0.26$ ($p < .05$). Thus, when men and women both performed the same level of task related behaviors, women tended to over-emerge as leaders more than men.

Hypothesis 3 predicted that women who engage in more boundary spanning behaviors over-emerge as leaders. In support of Hypothesis 3, we found that women who performed boundary spanning behaviors emerged as leaders to a larger extent than men ($B = 0.32$, $p < .05$), and that there were no differences in leadership effectiveness between men and women who performed boundary spanning behaviors ($B = 0.07$, n.s.) (Table 5). Figure 2 illustrates the pattern of these associations.

We decomposed the multivariate effects of boundary spanning behaviors on leadership emergence vs. effectiveness for women vs. men in Mplus using multilevel multigroup analyses. The effect of boundary spanning behaviors on emergence was stronger for women vs. men ($B = 0.31$, $p = 0.05$), whereas the impact of boundary spanning behaviors on leadership effectiveness was not significantly different for women vs. men ($B = 0.08$, n.s.). The over-emergence effect for women who engaged in

boundary spanning behaviors was $B = 0.24$ ($p < .05$) and for men it was $B = 0.00$ (n.s.). Supporting Hypothesis 2, women who performed boundary spanning behaviors over-emerged as leaders to a larger extent than men who performed the exact same behaviors and that effect was 0.24 ($p < .05$).

TABLE 5
Multivariate Regression Estimates for Hypothesis 3: The Interactive Effects of Gender and Boundary Behaviors

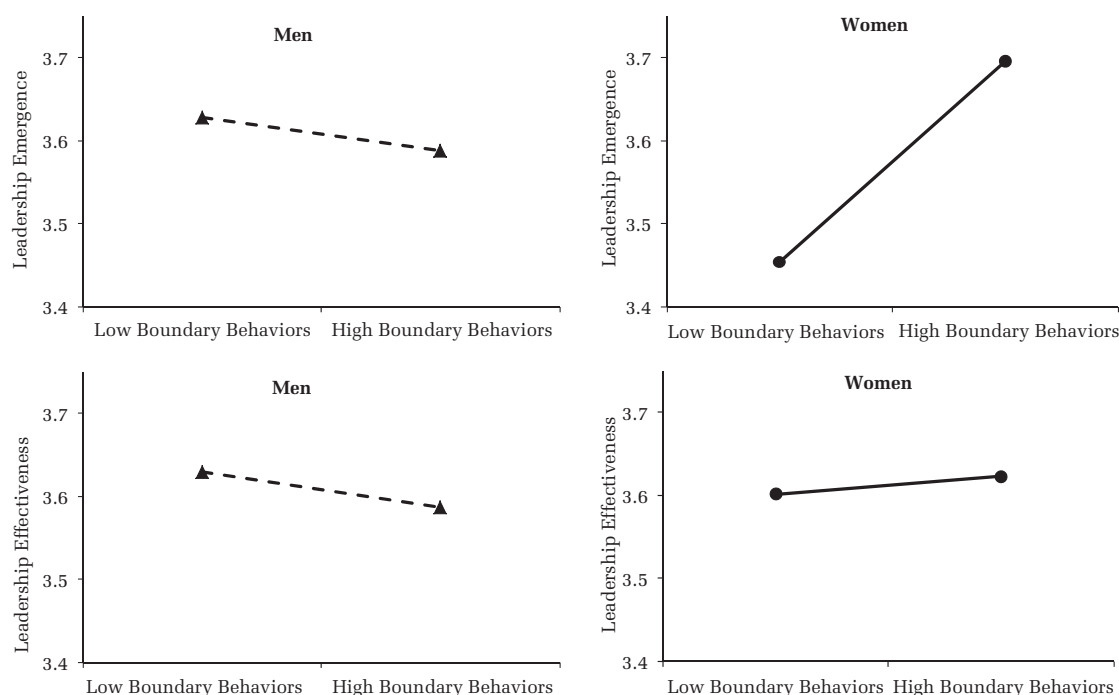
Variable	Leadership Emergence		Leadership Effectiveness	
	B	t-value	B	t-value
Agreeableness	-0.07	-0.71	-0.01	-0.08
Conscientiousness	0.08	1.54	0.06	1.48
Extraversion	0.06	1.04	-0.01	-0.27
Gender (1 = Women)	-0.03	-0.39	0.00	0.07
Task Behaviors	1.00	6.56**	0.40	4.49**
Boundary Behaviors	-0.05	-0.36	-0.05	-0.43
Social Behaviors	0.11	1.25	0.50	5.93**
Boundary X Gender	0.32	1.97*	0.07	0.67

Note: Level 1 $n = 177$; no. of clusters = 37; unstandardized coefficients reported.

* $p < .05$

** $p < .01$

FIGURE 2
Effects of Boundary Behaviors on Leadership Over-Emergence for Men vs. Women



Finally, Hypothesis 4 stated that men who performed more social behaviors would over-emerge as leaders compared to women – a test of the gender neutrality proposition of Expectancy Violation Theory. We did not find support for this hypothesis (Table 6). More specifically, the interaction of gender and social behaviors was non-significant ($B = 0.13$, n.s.) in predicting leadership emergence nor effectiveness ($B = 0.05$, n.s.). Decomposition of the multivariate effects of social behaviors on leadership emergence vs. effectiveness for men vs. women revealed that the effect of social behaviors on emergence was not significant for women ($B = 0.16$, n.s.) nor for men ($B = 0.04$, n.s.). In contrast, the impact of social behaviors on effectiveness was significant for both women ($B = 0.54$, $p < .01$) and men ($B = 0.49$, $p < .01$), but this effect did not differ by gender ($B = 0.05$, n.s.).

Although it was not anticipated in advance, one interesting result documented in Table 6 and by the decomposition of effects is that regardless of gender, individuals who engaged in a large number of social behaviors *under-emerged* as leaders. This was due to the fact that engaging in social behaviors did not trigger perceptions of leadership emergence for men or women, but it did enhance perceptions of leadership effectiveness for both men and women.

Specifically, the under-emergence effect for men was $B = -0.45$ ($p < .01$) and for women it was $B = -0.39$ ($p < .01$) and this effect did not differ by gender ($B = -0.07$, n.s.). Under-emergence occurs when a team member effectively influences team performance but does not stand out or attain high status as a team leader to a commensurate extent.

TABLE 6
Multivariate Regression Estimates for Hypothesis 4: The Interactive Effect of Gender and Social Behaviors

Variable	Leadership Emergence		Leadership Effectiveness	
	B	t-value	B	t-value
Agreeableness	-0.04	-0.43	0.00	0.00
Conscientiousness	0.09	1.60	0.06	1.51
Extraversion	0.05	1.02	-0.01	-0.29
Gender (1 = Women)	-0.02	-0.27	0.01	0.10
Task Behaviors	1.02	6.95**	0.40	4.51**
Boundary Behaviors	0.06	0.47	-0.03	-0.24
Social Behaviors	0.06	0.59	0.48	5.22**
Social X Gender	0.13	0.75	0.05	0.42

Note: Level 1 $n = 177$; no. of clusters = 37; unstandardized coefficients reported.

** $p < .01$

Because leadership emergence is a continuous variable and not a discrete “all-or-nothing” phenomenon (Côté, Lopes, Salovey, & Miners, 2010), one does not have to reach a certain threshold to emerge as a leader before he or she can be an effective leader. The resulting implication is that one can over-emerge or under emerge as a leader in self-managing teams.

DISCUSSION

Whether one is dealing with a cult or a political party or a problem solving team, there is always a chance that the wrong person could emerge as an influential force that leads the team in the wrong direction. Indeed, empirically documented disparities between various predictors and leadership emergence on the one hand, versus leadership effectiveness on the other hand, means that in many cases, an individuals' proclivity for emerging as a leader may not always match to a corresponding proclivity to be successful as a leader. We labeled this phenomenon leadership over-emergence. We then documented that despite the expected positive relationship between ratings of leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness, in over half of the cases, our respondents had no problem admitting that, when it came to their own perceptions, the person who emerged as the most influential leader in their team was not the same person they rated as the most effective leader in their team.

In support of Gender Role Theory, we documented that, all else equal, there was a direct bias against women when it came to leadership emergence that resulted in men over-emerging as leaders. Furthermore, we supported one of the major propositions of Expectancy Violation Theory by showing that when women engaged in counter-stereotypic agentic behaviors they over-emerged as leaders to a larger extent than men. In contrast to what we predicted, men who engaged in counter-stereotypic social behaviors did not over-emerge as leaders relative to women.

Theoretical and Practical Contributions

We should stress that our results did not support the “gender-neutrality” element of Expectancy Violation Theory. Expectancy Violation Theory is gender neutral in the sense that based upon this theory one would predict that a man who engaged in positive counter-stereotypic behaviors would get more perceptual credit for those behaviors relative

to a woman who engaged in the exact same behaviors. Because engaging in social behaviors goes against the gender stereotype for men (Kulik & Olekalns, 2012), one ought to document yet another type of bias that benefits men. Indeed, there is some evidence that men who engage in communal behaviors may benefit from such actions more than women (e.g., Heilman & Chen, 2005). This was decidedly not true in this context, however, because there was no significant interaction of gender and social behaviors when it came to leadership over-emergence.

Instead, our results suggested that regardless of gender, anyone who engaged in a high level of social behaviors *under-emerged* as a leader. Although the individuals in our study did recognize that engaging in social behaviors contributed to leadership effectiveness, these same behaviors did not trigger automatic perceptions of leadership emergence. Thus, whereas most formal scientific theories propose that social behaviors are necessary for leadership effectiveness (DeRue et al., 2011; Katz & Kahn, 1978; Mumford et al., 2006, 2008; Stogdill, 1948) – a proposition supported by our data – these behaviors did not contribute to perceptions of leadership emergence within these self-managing teams.

One potential reason for this non-finding may be due to the fact that while social behaviors are important for the effectiveness of both men and women leaders (DeRue et al., 2011), they are not as important for perceptions of their emergence as leaders. Indeed, the literature on Gender Role Theory supports the position that agency is more important for leadership emergence than communion (Carli, 2010; Eagly & Karau, 1991). Thus, in terms of theoretical contribution, this study supported elements of both Gender Role Theory and Expectancy Violation Theory.

This research also has implications for the continuum model by Fiske and Neuberg (1990) and Fiske and colleagues (1999) and for Status Characteristic Theory (Berger, Cohen, & Zelditch, 1972). According to the continuum model, perceivers give priority to categorization over individuation in that perceivers categorize individuals based on salient features such as gender and this happens automatically within milliseconds (Fiske et al., 1999). When disconfirming information is received (e.g., a woman engaging in agentic behavior), the perceiver tends to recategorize the subject to a new category (e.g., women performing agentic behaviors are more leaderlike than men performing agentic behavior). That is, “Recategorization represents an

attempt to find a different category that can be interpreted as adequate organizing the bulk of current information" (Fiske & Neuberg, 1990: 7).

Whereas Gender Role Theory speaks more clearly to the categorization process (e.g., women are not leaderlike), Expectancy Violation Theory speaks more clearly to the recategorization process (women performing agentic behaviors are more leaderlike). Specifically, according to Expectancy Violation Theory, performance of agentic behaviors prompts a recategorization that leans more heavily in the direction of the violation (women performing agentic behaviors are more leaderlike than men performing agentic behaviors). In fact, our study seems to indicate that the recategorization process is like a pendulum that swings back too far, in the sense that women who are recategorized derive more benefit from leadership behaviors relative to men who enact that exact same behaviors. This "over-correction" effect has not been recognized by Fiske and colleagues, and hence, our results may extend the continuum model in this regard.

Our work also has implications for Status Characteristic Theory (Berger et al., 1972; Berger, Norman, Balkwell, & Smith, 1992). According to Status Characteristics Theory, personal characteristics influence perceptions of status in group contexts (Berger et al., 1972; 1992). Status, in turn, informs performance-expectation such that performance expectations are lower for team members perceived to have low status compared to team members perceived to have high status. According to Status Characteristic Theory, because women have lower status in self-managing teams (Eagly & Karau, 1991), there should be lower performance expectations for women versus men.

However, when women perform high task-relevant contributions by engaging in task and boundary behaviors, they violate gender-activated performance expectations. In line with Expectancy Violation Theory, these women ought to receive more status in the group relative to men who perform the same amount of task-relevant behaviors but who do not violate expectations. Lending support to this idea, recent work by Bendersky and Shah (2013) shows that low-status members gain more status over time because they surpass performance expectations for group-task contributions.

Practical Implications

From both the perspective of the organization and of the individual, it is in the best interest of everyone to eliminate biases in the selection or emergence of

leaders. Leadership over-emergence is thus an important phenomenon that has to be managed in organizational contexts, especially in organizations that rely on autonomous, self-managing teams. Although it is certainly the case that centralized organizations can assign the wrong leader to a team, the decisions of autonomous self-managing teams regarding leadership emergence may be driven by biases to a larger extent than selection decisions generated by specialized human resource professionals. In addition, the decisions generated by autonomous self-managing teams may not be validated in the same objective manner relative to what might be found when such decisions are made by more centralized functional specialists.

At the very least, organizations can employ 360 degree feedback programs (London & Beatty, 2006) or "after action review" processes (DeRue, Nahrgang, Hollenbeck, & Workman, 2012) to provide teams with data that may help them overcome subjective biases. Providing teams with 360 feedback data may help team-members to overcome subjective biases because bias is very difficult to detect in one's own perceptions but easier to recognize in others (West, Meserve, & Stanovich, 2012). For example, routine 360 feedback sessions provided early in the life of the team and consistently throughout its tenure, which compare one's own ratings with those of other team members' ratings would shed light on potential biases.

In addition, leadership rotational programs (Erez, LePine, & Elms, 2002), could be initiated to ensure that each member of the team has an opportunity to exhibit leadership behaviors and leadership effectiveness. Left to their own devices, the subjective biases documented here may result in the same one or two people emerging as leaders in every instance, hence precluding the opportunity to generate data about the leadership strengths and weaknesses of the other team members. These biases may create habitual or entrenched leadership situations that are then reinforced by the propensity of those who hold power to cling to power (Halevy, Chou, & Galinsky, 2011). Rotational leadership schemes that formally trigger switches in leadership based upon time (every quarter) or project cycle (idea generation versus idea execution) or task characteristic (simple or complex) or outcome requirement (quantity versus quality) could be leveraged to get a more comprehensive understanding of who is the best leader for the team under different circumstances.

Individuals do not have to rely on organizational level interventions to prevent leadership over-emergence, however, and there is a great deal that

individual team members can do to promote a stronger relationship between leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness in their teams. Someone who may happen to be a candidate for leadership under-emergence (e.g., an introverted woman) can take active steps to engage in the type of behaviors identified here as triggering perceptions of leadership emergence. For example, Sheryl Sandberg, the chief operating officer of Facebook, and one of the most successful women leaders in the country recently stated: “We hold ourselves back in ways both big and small by lacking self-confidence, by not raising our hands, and by pulling back when we should be leaning in (Luscombe, 2013: 36).” Our study highlights behaviors that may be helpful to women who are interested in pursuing leadership positions.

Indeed, one reason for women’s under-representation in senior-management positions could be because women perform fewer agentic behaviors in groups as demonstrated by our findings here and previous research (Eagly & Karau, 1991). This is not surprising given that many of the obstacles that women leaders experience in higher managerial levels start when they are minorities within smaller groups (Carli, 2010). Our findings seem to suggest that performance of agentic behaviors is likely to help women overcome gender bias at least in the context of self-managing teams.

We are quick to note, however, that this “help” is due to expectancy violation biases that work in the favor of women who perform the exact same agentic behaviors as equivalent men. Thus, performance of more agentic behaviors is not the ultimate solution to women’s under-representation in upper management *per se*. A more permanent solution would be for gender stereotypes to change in our society and for leadership to be conceptualized not only as agentic but also as communal (e.g., Koenig et al., 2011). Still, having said that, we believe that there is value in being able to offer a “way out” for women who want to emerge as leaders in small groups.

Strengths, Limitations, and Suggestions for Future Research

By examining both leader characteristics (e.g., gender) and behaviors (task, boundary, and social) and their effect on leadership emergence and effectiveness in self-managing teams, this current study responds to recent calls for integration of trait and behavioral approaches to leadership (DeRue et al., 2011). In addition, the longitudinal nature of

data that spanned seven months of measurement allowed for separation among our predictors, moderators, and dependent variables that diminishes the possibility of reverse causality among these constructs. It also allowed for the development of richer interpersonal relationships among the team members studied here, providing an opportunity to get beyond surface-level characteristics when it comes to examining perceptions of leadership emergence and leadership effectiveness. Also, the use of multiple sources of data for most of the constructs minimizes problems of common source and method bias (Podsakoff, MacKenzie, Lee, & Podsakoff, 2003).

Current measures of leadership emergence capture perceptions of “leaderlike” attributes and perceptions of behavior, and these subjective assessments may be more vulnerable to bias than measures of leadership emergence that are operationalized via more objective methods (videotapes coded by trained raters). It will be interesting, therefore, to examine leadership over-emergence in contexts where scholars can develop more objective measures of leadership emergence. Similarly, leadership over-emergence was conceptualized and operationalized here as effect differences that gender and leader behaviors had on leadership emergence vs. leadership effectiveness. There is a clear need for a more direct measure of leadership over-emergence that captures team members’ perceptions of whether someone is exerting more influence than he or she should in a team context.

Furthermore, future research should examine the impact of agentic and social behaviors on leadership emergence at different stages of group development. This would allow for a more explicit examination of whether gender bias evolves over time as a function of agentic and social behaviors and at different stages of group development for men vs. women. For example, team members may place higher value on social behaviors when these are enacted during episodes of social dysfunction such as during the storming or performing stages of group development (Tuckman, 1965). As a result, individuals who engage in social behaviors during such times may be more likely to be evaluated as emergent leaders.

This current work is the first formal examination of leadership over-emergence, but there is value in also examining and understanding leadership under-emergence. Under-emergence occurs when a team member effectively influences team performance but does not stand out or attain high status as

a team leader to a commensurate extent. Although not part of this study, as part of other laboratory-based research projects in the area of team decision-making, we have witnessed leadership under-emergence very frequently in highly controlled contexts where there were objectively correct and incorrect answers. Because we are unsure of how prevalent under-emergence is in self-managing teams, we invite future research to shed light on the phenomenon of under-emergence and its predictors.

Also, in this research context, gender was confounded with minority status in the sense that there were more men in this sample relative to women. This is true of most MBA programs (Kelan & Jones, 2010) and to some extent, business as a whole, at least when it comes to leadership positions. In fact, women remain underrepresented in senior management positions and data from the Bureau of Labor Statistics indicate that in 2011 women occupied only 30% of general and operations managers, and 24.2% of chief executive positions in the United States (U.S. Bureau of Labor Statistics, 2011). Still future research should examine how the nature of the group's composition, in terms of being male or female dominated, influences the relationships detected in our study.

Furthermore, it is possible that self-oriented agentic behaviors may constitute negative violations but other-advocating agentic behaviors may constitute positive violations for women. In this study we focused on task and boundary behaviors because they are the most typical leader behaviors displayed in team contexts (Katz & Kahn, 1978; Mumford et al., 2006; 2008). Because we cannot tease apart whether our results are driven by the other-advocating nature of these agentic behaviors, we invite future research to investigate both other-advocating and self-oriented agentic behavior in the context of leadership over-emergence in self-managing teams.

It is plausible that women who engage in agentic behaviors and over-emerge as leaders may be less liked and admired by team-members. This expectation is in line with a large and robust body of literature, which shows that women who engage in agentic behaviors suffer social backlash along communal dimensions such as likeability. The women in our sample may have experienced social backlash but we did not measure likeability or other indicators of backlash. We did not focus on backlash because our focus was on countervailing biases triggered by performance of agentic behavior. There certainly is value in examining over-emergence in

light of social backlash. Future research, for example, could examine whether women who perform task and boundary behaviors and over-emerge as leaders are liked less than men who perform these same behaviors.

Finally, we did not explore other potential predictor variables such as cognitive ability or leadership experience that might also contribute to leadership over- or under emergence. Clearly, this study, as the first one to identify the phenomenon, only scratches the surface in terms of factors that impact leadership over-emergence. Our hope is that future research, perhaps stimulated by the results presented here, extends our understanding of this important but under-studied phenomenon.

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